PHYS 2550 Homework 2

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GitHub

1 Theory

T1. Counting parameters.

For a dense layer with n inputs and m outputs, I count $(n+1)m$ parameters. For a convolution, the count is $(k^2 C_{\text{in}} + 1)C_{\text{out}}$. The extra term is the bias, counted once per output. ReLU, pooling, flattening and dropout do not add trainable parameters.

Table 1: Parameter counts for the three reference architectures.

Model / layer	Calculation	Parameters
CNN: convolution 1	$(3 \times 3 \times 3 + 1) \times 16$	448
CNN: convolution 2	$(3 \times 3 \times 16 + 1) \times 32$	4,640
CNN: convolution 3	$(3 \times 3 \times 32 + 1) \times 64$	18,496
CNN: dense 64	$(6 \times 6 \times 64 + 1) \times 64$	147,520
CNN: output	$(64 + 1) \times 10$	650
CNN total		**171,754**
FCNN-matched: dense 24	$(6{,}912 + 1) \times 24$	165,912
FCNN-matched: dense 64	$(24 + 1) \times 64$	1,600
FCNN-matched: output	$(64 + 1) \times 10$	650
FCNN-matched total		**168,162**
FCNN-large: dense 256	$(6{,}912 + 1) \times 256$	1,769,728
FCNN-large: dense 128	$(256 + 1) \times 128$	32,896
FCNN-large: output	$(128 + 1) \times 10$	1,290
FCNN-large total		**1,803,914**

Most of the CNN's parameters are actually in its first dense layer: 147,520/171,754 $\approx$ 85.9%. In the FCNN, each first-layer node connects to all 6,912 input values and needs 6,913 parameters including its bias. Just 24 nodes therefore use 165,912 parameters. This leaves the matched FCNN only about 2.1% smaller than the CNN; a wider first layer would quickly exceed that budget.

T2. Convolution and pooling by hand.

(a) For the upper-left entry, I get $5(3) - 2 - 0 - 1 - 1 = 11$. Repeating this across the input gives a 3×3 map:

$$I \star K = \begin{bmatrix} 11 & -4 & 6 \\ -4 & 15 & -4 \\ -5 & 2 & 9 \end{bmatrix}. \tag{1}$$

(b) For dilation 1, I use

$$N_{\text{out}} = \left\lfloor \frac{N + 2p - k}{s} \right\rfloor + 1. \tag{2}$$

Padding 1 therefore gives 5×5, while stride 2 without padding gives 2×2.

(c) Applying 2×2 pooling with stride 1, I get

$$M = \begin{bmatrix} 15 & 15 \\ 15 & 15 \end{bmatrix}, \qquad A = \begin{bmatrix} 4.50 & 3.25 \\ 2.00 & 5.50 \end{bmatrix}. \tag{3}$$

For example, the upper-left average is $(11 - 4 - 4 + 15)/4 = 4.5$.

If I move the bright central pixel, its sharpened response and the responses around it change. Max pooling can keep the same peak while it stays inside a window. Once it crosses a window boundary, that need not hold. Average pooling spreads the change across overlapping windows, so neither map is exactly invariant to the movement.

(d) The kernel entries sum to one, so a constant intensity c stays unchanged away from the boundaries. For independent noise, I get

$$\text{Var}(I \star K) = \sigma^2 \sum K^2 = 29\sigma^2. \tag{4}$$

The noise standard deviation therefore increases by $\sqrt{29} \approx 5.39$. Sharpening may make an edge clearer, but it also greatly amplifies the sky noise. I would be careful about using it on faint galaxies.

(e) This kernel is unchanged by a 180° flip, so convolution and cross-correlation give the same result. For a learned kernel, flipping simply relabels the trainable coefficients: either convention represents the same family of functions. The numerical arrays of learned weights need not be identical.

T3. Shapes and receptive field.

(a) Following the input through the CNN gives the shapes below.

Table 2: Layer shapes and receptive fields.

Layer	Output shape H × W × C	Receptive field / jump
Input	48 × 48 × 3	1 / 1
Conv 1; ReLU	48 × 48 × 16 (each)	3 / 1
Pool 1	24 × 24 × 16	4 / 2
Conv 2; ReLU	24 × 24 × 32 (each)	8 / 2
Pool 2	12 × 12 × 32	10 / 4
Conv 3; ReLU	12 × 12 × 64 (each)	18 / 4
Pool 3	6 × 6 × 64	22 / 8
Flatten	2,304 values	All locations retained
Dense 64; ReLU; dropout	64 values (each)	Global combination
Dense output	10 logits	Global combination

(b) For kernel size k and stride s, the receptive field r and spacing j follow

$$r' = r + (k - 1)j, \qquad j' = sj. \tag{5}$$

A unit after the third convolution sees 18×18 input pixels, smaller than a typical 20–40 pixel galaxy. The final pooling layer reaches 22×22, which can cover a small, suitably aligned galaxy but not a 40-pixel one. The dense head combines features across the whole crop.

(c) A first convolution with stride 2 and no padding would produce $23 \times 23 \times 16$.

T4. Equivariance and invariance.

(a) Translation equivariance means that shifting the input shifts the output in the same way, $f(T_\delta x) = T_\delta f(x)$. Invariance means that the output stays unchanged, $f(T_\delta x) = f(x)$. Ignoring boundaries,

$$[K \star T_\delta x](u) = \sum_v K(v)x(u + v - \delta) = [T_\delta(K \star x)](u). \tag{6}$$

Shared convolutional weights therefore give translation equivariance, and pointwise ReLU preserves it.

(b) Pooling reduces sensitivity to small local shifts. However, its stride and window boundaries, image padding, and the position-dependent dense head prevent exact invariance. Dropout does not itself enforce translation invariance.

(c) An unconstrained FCNN has separate weights for each input position, so neither property is built in. I expect both models to lose accuracy when I shift the crops, but I expect the CNN's drop to be smaller.

T5. Scrambled pixels.

A fixed permutation preserves every pixel value but changes its neighbours. An FCNN can absorb this reordering into the columns of its first weight matrix, so its representational capacity is unchanged. After retraining, I expect similar performance within optimisation and seed variation. A CNN's small kernels instead act on pixels that are no longer spatial neighbours. I expect its advantage to shrink. Scrambling tests the usefulness of locality, rather than simply removing information from the input.

T6. Parameters are not compute.

(a) I counted one MAC per input–weight pair in each output. The totals are:

Table 3: Forward multiply–accumulate counts.

Forward operation	CNN MACs	FCNN-matched MACs
First layer	$48^2 \times 16 \times 27 = 995{,}328$	$6{,}912 \times 24 = 165{,}888$
Second layer	$24^2 \times 32 \times 144 = 2{,}654{,}208$	$24 \times 64 = 1{,}536$
Third convolution	$12^2 \times 64 \times 288 = 2{,}654{,}208$	—
Dense head	$2{,}304 \times 64 + 64 \times 10 = 148{,}096$	$64 \times 10 = 640$
Total	**6,451,840**	**168,064**

(b) I get about 38.4 times as many forward MACs for the CNN as for FCNN-matched. It reuses each convolutional weight at many positions, saving parameters without eliminating the corresponding multiplications. Training also requires backward operations and parameter updates, so 38.4 is an arithmetic estimate, not an exact wall-clock ratio. Hardware, batching and memory access affect the measured ratio. FCNN-large requires 1,803,520 forward MACs.

(c) A CNN could still reach a given validation accuracy in fewer epochs. Whether that also means less time depends on how expensive each epoch is. I therefore compare seconds per epoch, epochs to the same target, and total seconds to that target, including how many runs never reach it.

T7. Pooling and noise.

(a) Averaging four independent sky pixels gives mean μ and variance $4\sigma^2/16 = \sigma^2/4$. The output standard deviation is therefore $\sigma/2$.

(b) Max pooling is biased upward. For Gaussian noise, its expected output is approximately $\mu + 1.03\sigma$, so it can select a positive fluctuation even when there is no source.

(c) For a dark object on a light background, min pooling would preserve the dark response more naturally than max pooling. For a faint, extended galaxy on noisy sky, I would consider average pooling in the first layer because it reduces independent noise while preserving a local mean signal. It can also dilute small bright features. The prescribed comparison retains max pooling in all three blocks; changing it would change the reference architecture. Moreover, a learned feature map is not raw sky, and the independent-noise calculation is only an approximation there.

T8. Reading training curves.

(a) In the supplied curves, I can see that FCNN-large is overfitting: training loss keeps falling while validation loss reaches a minimum near epoch 8 and then rises. I would select that minimum with early stopping. The CNN has a much smaller gap and both curves flatten together, with no clear severe overfitting. That does not tell me its remaining error is unavoidable.

(b) Weight decay discourages large weights and reduces model flexibility. Increasing dropout makes the network less dependent on particular hidden units. Both can reduce the FCNN's gap, but excessive regularisation can cause underfitting.

(c) The CNN's local connections and shared weights constrain the functions it can learn in a way suited to images. That helps explain a smaller gap; seeing the same training images does not give two architectures the same generalisation behaviour.

2 Data and preprocessing

2.1 First look

The file contains 21,785 images of shape $69 \times 69 \times 3$, stored as uint8, with pixel values from 0 to 255. The label array has one integer per image. I used Galaxy10 SDSS, whose labels are derived from Galaxy Zoo votes [1]. A fixed seed of 2550 gives 15,249 training, 3,268 validation and 3,268 test images, using a stratified 70/15/15 split.

Table 4: Class counts and the stratified data split.

Class	Morphology	All	Train	Val.	Test
0	Face-on, no spiral	3461	2423	519	519
1	Smooth, round	6997	4898	1049	1050
2	Smooth, intermediate	6292	4404	944	944
3	Smooth, cigar	349	244	52	53
4	Edge-on, rounded bulge	1534	1074	230	230
5	Edge-on, boxy bulge	17	12	3	2
6	Edge-on, no bulge	589	412	89	88
7	Tight spiral	1121	785	168	168
8	Medium spiral	906	634	136	136
9	Loose spiral	519	363	78	78

I kept all ten classes to preserve the supplied reference models. Class 5 has only 17 examples, so its measured recall is highly uncertain; classes 3, 6 and 9 are also relatively uncommon. The verified file has 349 class-3 images, rather than the 394 listed in the documentation. I use the measured count. I report

balanced accuracy, the mean of ten class recalls, alongside accuracy; it exposes minority-class failures but also gives the tiny class considerable influence.

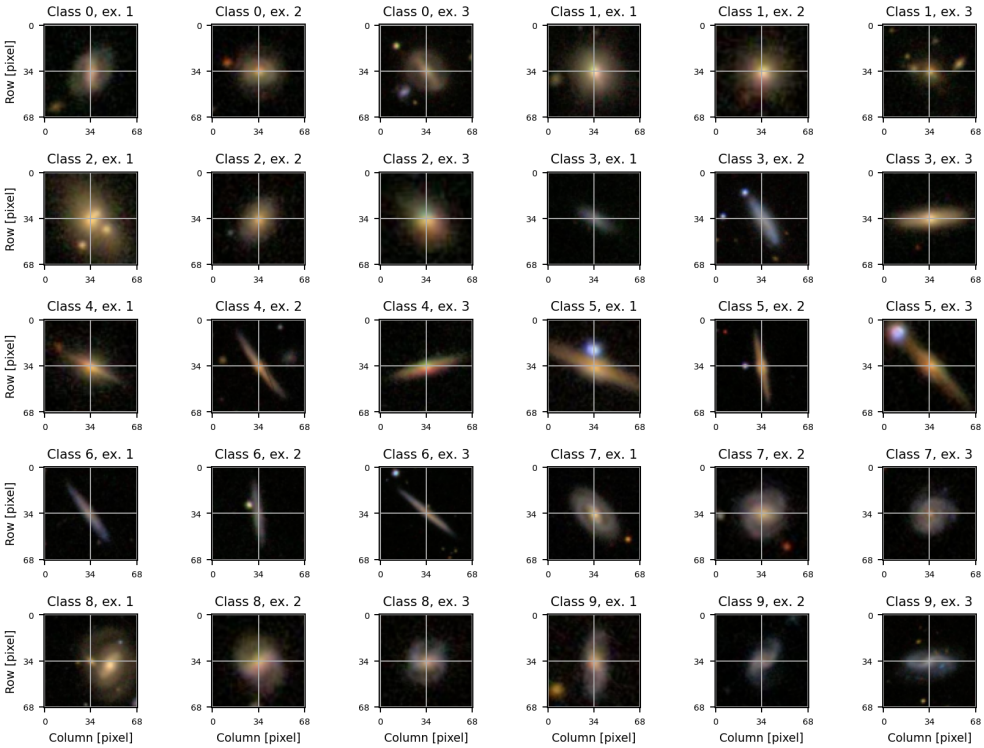


Figure 1: Three training examples per class. The grid uses only training images; class labels and pixel coordinates identify the panels.

2.2 Is the dataset noisy?

(a) Sky noise.

After splitting, I restricted exploratory plots and preprocessing decisions to the 15,249 training images. Each sky estimate uses the outer four-pixel frame, excluding its corners only from double counting. I compared the population standard deviation with 1.4826 times the median absolute deviation from the frame median, separately in each band.

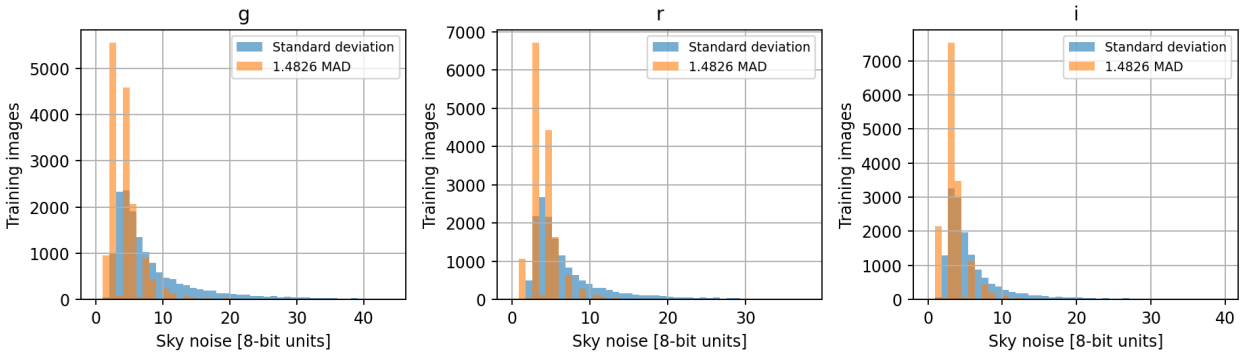


Figure 2: Training-set distributions of the two sky-noise estimators. The displayed range ends at the 99.5th percentile of the standard deviation; the saved measurements include the tails.

I found median standard deviations of 5.99, 5.21 and 4.51 intensity units in g, r and i. The robust estimates are lower: 4.45, 2.97 and 2.97. Bright border objects or galaxy light can raise the standard deviation more strongly than the MAD, which explains the difference in Fig. 2. These estimates describe fluctuations in the resized, quantised images, rather than calibrated detector noise [1].

(b) Signal-to-noise.

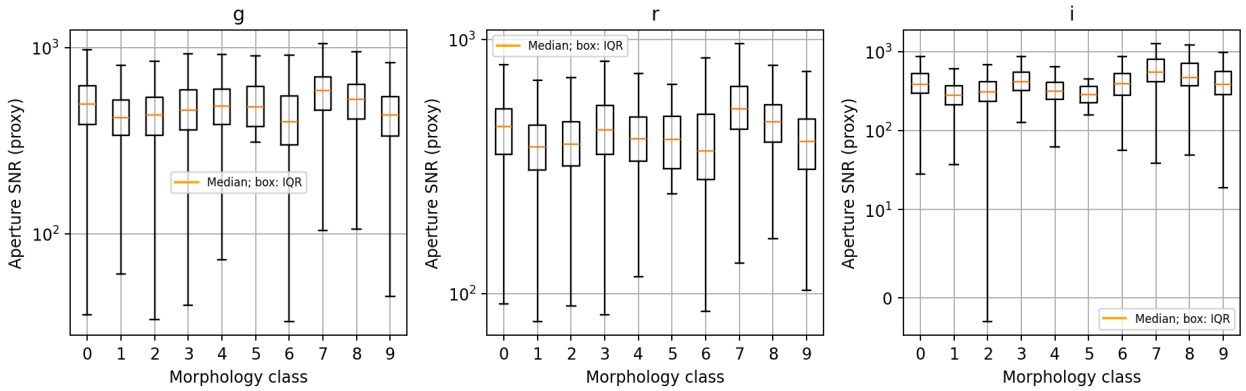


Figure 3: Aperture SNR proxy by class and band. Boxes show the interquartile range and median, with outliers hidden and a symmetric-log vertical axis.

I summed the sky-subtracted intensity inside radius 8 pixels (197 pixels) and divided by $\sigma_{\mathrm{sky}}\sqrt{N}$. In r, median SNR ranges from 363.5 for class 6 to 532.0 for class 7. To check faintness separately, I also compared aperture intensity: class 6 has median 12,348 and interquartile range 10,556–14,706, while class 2 has median 24,048 and range 20,610–27,054. Class 6 has the lowest median aperture intensity in both g and r, so its central regions are systematically fainter in these stored images. SNR alone would not show this: class 7 has the highest r SNR, but class 2 has the highest median r intensity. These are apparent, uncalibrated intensities; they do not measure total luminosity or separate distance from morphology.

Zero MAD values use a floor of $1/\sqrt{12}$ intensity units. They affect only 0.01%, 0.02% and 0.03% of the training images in g, r, i, respectively.

(c) Contamination and digitisation.

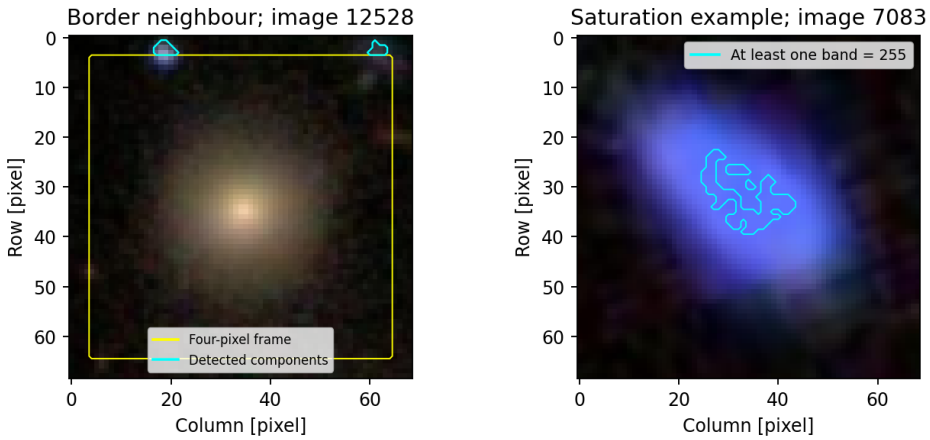


Figure 4: A visible neighbour touching the top border (left): yellow marks the frame and cyan marks the connected pixels that trigger the test. Cyan also marks saturated spatial pixels in the right panel.

My initial rule flags three connected r-band border pixels above the median plus $5\sigma_{\text{sky}}$. It flags 61.54% of training images, including galaxy outskirts. I therefore checked a random sample of 25 flagged and 25 unflagged images (seed 2554), recording a neighbour as clear only when a separate object visibly overlaps the frame. I found 11 clear and 5 uncertain cases among the flagged images, and 2 clear cases among the unflagged images. The notebook records every image ID, decision and sample image.

Weighting by the two groups' sizes gives $0.6154(11/25) + 0.3846(2/25) = 30.2\%$ with clear neighbours. Including the uncertain cases gives 42.5%. These are exploratory visual estimates: a stratified bootstrap gives an approximate 95% interval of 17.8–43.1% for the clear-only estimate, conditional on the visual decisions. It does not account for misclassification. Changing the threshold from 3σ to 5σ to 7σ changes the candidate rate from 91.6% to 61.5% to 47.8%, which shows why I should not equate the threshold count with contamination.

Saturation affects 0.0018% of spatial pixels (at least one band at 255), or 0.0006% of pixel-band values; 2.41% of images contain at least one saturated value. A neighbour mixes its light with the target's, while clipping erases differences above 255. Standardisation cannot recover either source's original intensity.

(d) Label noise.

I expect confusion between completely round and intermediate smooth galaxies (1 and 2), between adjacent spiral-tightness classes (7, 8 and 9), and between the edge-on bulge classes (4, 5 and 6). The distinctions can become ambiguous when the relevant structure is faint or unresolved. The labels were filtered using volunteer agreement, but agreement is not a guarantee of a correct physical label [1]. Label uncertainty limits reliable generalisation to the recorded labels; it does not provide a numerical accuracy ceiling without a model of the errors or repeated independent labels.

The data contain sky fluctuations, neighbouring objects, clipped values and uncertain labels. Background subtraction removes an offset and the crop excludes some neighbours. Neither operation restores clipped intensities or resolves ambiguous labels.

2.3 Preprocessing pipeline

(a) Crop.

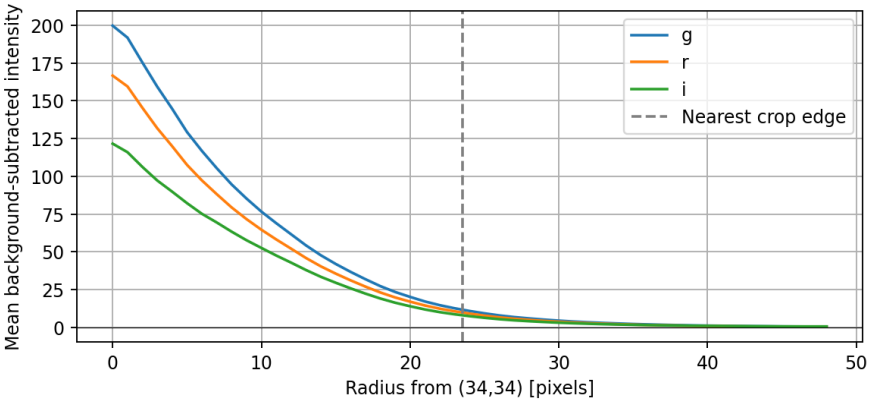


Figure 5: Mean training-set radial light profile after border-median subtraction. The dashed line marks the nearest edge of the reference crop.

I used rows and columns 10–57 for both models. This retains 88.4% of the positive background-subtracted intensity, including positive noise and neighbours; it is not a calibrated galaxy-flux fraction. At radius 23 pixels, mean r-band intensity is 10.65, compared with 166.72 at the centre. The crop keeps the bright central structure while reducing sky area, although some outskirts are lost.

(b) Normalisation.

I converted the images to floating point and standardised each band using

$$x'_b = \frac{x_b - \mathrm{sky}_b - \mu_b}{s_b}. \tag{7}$$

I calculated μ_b and s_b from the training crops only and used the same values on validation and test images. Using all images would let held-out information enter the preprocessing, even without their labels.

Table 5: Training-derived normalisation constants and processed moments.

Band	Training mean μ	Training SD s	Processed mean	Processed SD
g	38.8693	44.5335	3.89e-09	1.000000
r	32.6744	37.3249	-1.86e-08	1.000000
i	26.2158	31.6007	-1.72e-08	1.000000

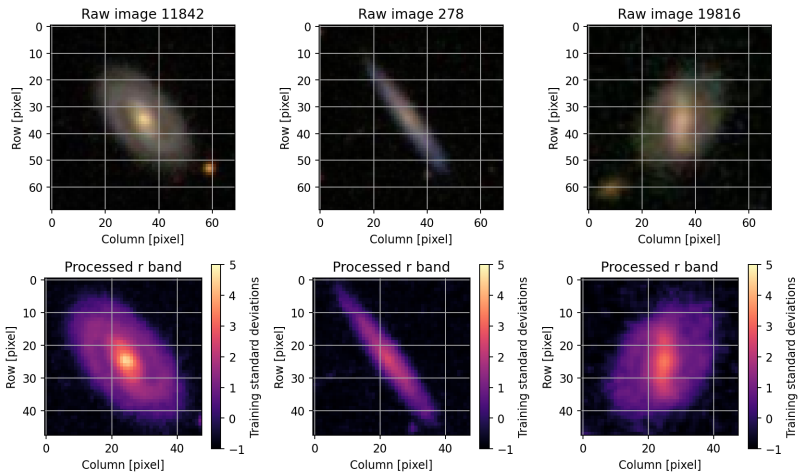


Figure 6: Raw colour images and their processed r-band crops. The processed panels share a fixed colour scale in training standard deviations.

Dividing each image by its brightest pixel removes its overall amplitude and can make the scale depend on a noisy or saturated pixel. A common divisor preserves relative colours, whereas separate per-band divisors also remove colour ratios. Brightness is not itself the morphology label, but surface brightness and signal-to-noise determine whether spiral structure is measurable. I therefore retained the image intensity scale after additive sky subtraction.

(c) Background.

I subtracted each image's per-band border median; the typical levels are 6.0, 6.0, 3.0 units. This removes an additive offset while preserving the intensity scale. It does not remove random noise or restore clipped values, and galaxy light in the border can bias it.

(d) Class imbalance.

I used class-weighted cross-entropy with weights proportional to $1/\sqrt{n_c}$, calculated from training counts. I did not use a weighted sampler. This gives the rare classes more influence without the very large weight that $1/n_c$ would give the 17-image class. I keep the same weights for every model. Plain accuracy can be dominated by the large classes, so I also report balanced accuracy.

2.4 Augmentation and the symmetries of the sky

I would use flips and 90° rotations because they preserve the morphology label and do not need interpolation. Flips reverse spiral handedness, but handedness is not one of the ten labels. Arbitrary rotations are physically reasonable too, although interpolation changes the sampled noise and a finite crop can cut off some of the galaxy.

Small shifts are useful if the galaxy stays inside the crop. I would be more careful with zoom, changes to the g:r:i ratios, and blurring. These change the apparent scale, colour or visibility of the structure, so I would need to justify them as possible observations of the same object.

I would start with flips, 90° rotations and small bounded shifts. I used no augmentation in the baseline or scrambled experiments, keeping the training comparison the same for every model.

3 FCNN vs. 2D CNN on equal footing

All models use the identical split, 48 × 48 crops, sky subtraction, training-derived scaling and weighted loss. I used Adam with learning rate 0.001, batches of 128, at most 50 epochs, and early stopping after five epochs without an improvement in validation loss. The best validation-loss weights are restored. Seeds 11, 22 and 33 control initialisation and training order. No architecture-specific tuning or augmentation was used.

I ran all eleven models sequentially on the same Tesla T4 GPU in Colab, using PyTorch 2.11.0+cu130 and NumPy 2.1.3. I synchronised CUDA before each timing measurement. An epoch includes training and validation, but excludes setup, plotting and file writing. Dropout is active when I record training loss and switched off for validation, so part of the gap between the curves also comes from that difference.

The common target is the highest validation accuracy reached by FCNN-matched across its three seeds: 70.13%. I record the first epoch and cumulative measured epoch time reaching it. Unreached targets are reported explicitly. The representative seed for each confusion matrix and ROC curve is chosen by validation loss, not test accuracy.

3.1 Baseline comparison

Table 6: Baseline test performance over three seeds.

Model	Accuracy (%)	Balanced accuracy (%)	Parameters	Best epoch
FCNN-matched	68.64 ± 2.54	49.16 ± 2.09	168,162	12.3 ± 1.2
FCNN-large	70.76 ± 0.68	52.99 ± 1.94	1,803,914	9.3 ± 4.2
CNN	75.91 ± 1.21	59.47 ± 0.11	171,754	18.3 ± 3.1

I report the mean and sample standard deviation across the three seeds. The best epoch is the one with the lowest validation loss, even though training continues for another five epochs before stopping. The parameter counts in the notebook agree with T1.

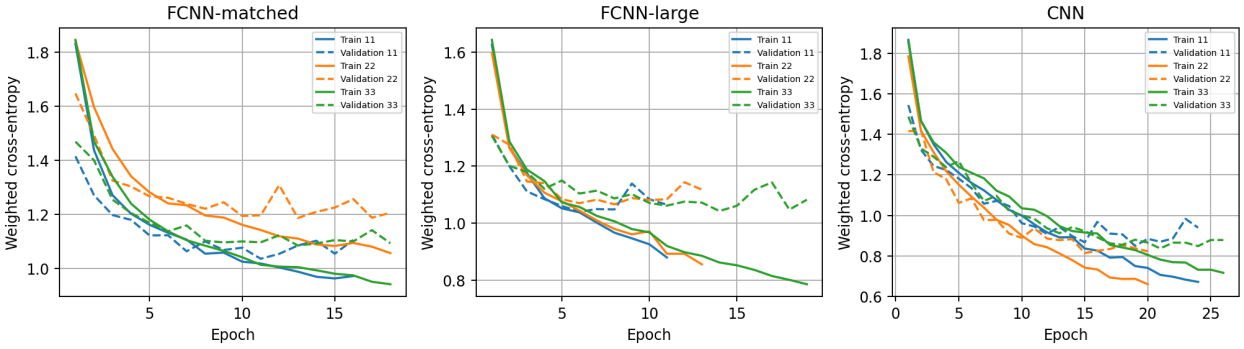


Figure 7: Training and validation weighted cross-entropy for every baseline seed. Solid and dashed lines share a colour within each seed.

The CNN leads on both metrics in Table 6. However, balanced accuracy is much lower than ordinary accuracy for every model, showing that the common classes hide poorer performance on the rare ones.

Table 7: Measured training times and common-target reach counts.

Model	Seconds / epoch	Epochs run	Target reached	Epochs to target*	Seconds to target*
FCNN-matched	0.52 ± 0.02	17.3 ± 1.2	1/3	11.0	6.2
FCNN-large	0.55 ± 0.00	14.3 ± 4.2	3/3	11.3 ± 3.8	6.3 ± 2.1
CNN	1.00 ± 0.05	23.3 ± 3.1	3/3	10.3 ± 2.1	10.7 ± 2.6

*Only successful runs enter the target-time summaries; one success has no between-seed SD. These are not expected times for an arbitrary seed.

The measured CNN/FCNN-matched epoch-time ratio is 1.90, far below the MAC ratio of 38.4. GPU parallelism, memory movement and validation all affect seconds per epoch. CNN epochs range from 0.95 to 3.16 seconds (median 0.96); I kept the slow epochs in the averages. These are measurements of this T4 run, not general hardware benchmarks.

The validation-selected seeds restore epochs 11, 6 and 15 for matched FCNN, large FCNN and CNN, respectively. Their loss curves show why continuing to lower training loss does not necessarily improve validation loss.

Which classes are confused?

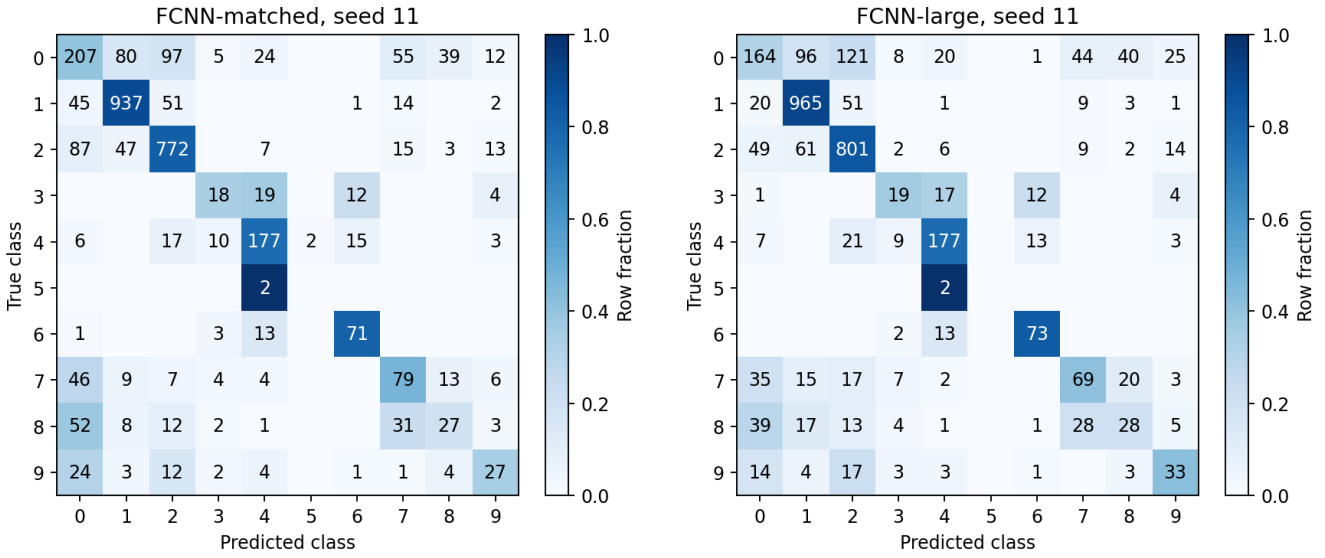


Figure 8: Confusion matrices for the validation-selected FCNN seeds. Colour is the fraction within each true class; numbers are image counts.

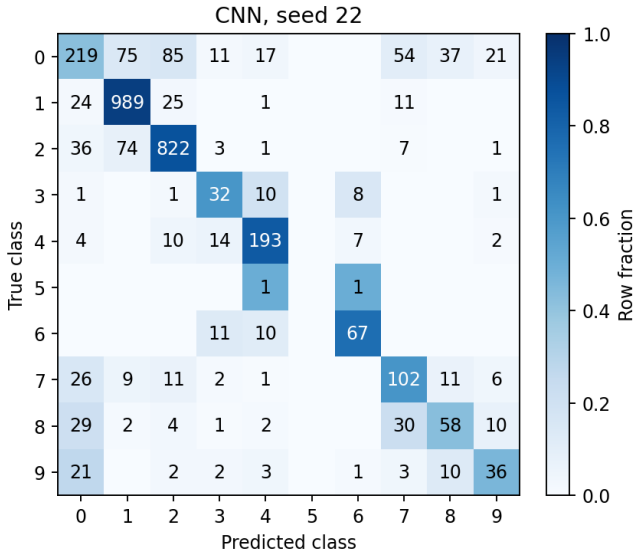


Figure 8: Continued: the validation-selected CNN seed, with the same colour scale and class labels.

The largest individual mistakes involve class 0 and the smooth classes: matched FCNN makes 97 errors from $0 \to 2$, large FCNN makes 121, and CNN makes 85. The row-normalised colours show the error fractions, avoiding a comparison based only on the different class sizes.

The CNN confuses smooth classes 1 and 2 in 99 cases and the spiral classes 7–9 with one another in 70 cases. These are the neighbouring-category confusions anticipated in Section 2.2. Class 0 also lacks visible spiral structure, so confusion with a smooth class can reflect an unresolved distinction between a face-on disk and a smooth object.

For the representative CNN, class 5 has 0 correct predictions out of 2 test examples. A change of one prediction changes that class's recall by 50.0 percentage points and ten-class balanced accuracy by 5.00 points. Repeating training seeds does not remove this uncertainty because all seeds use the same test galaxies.

ROC curves

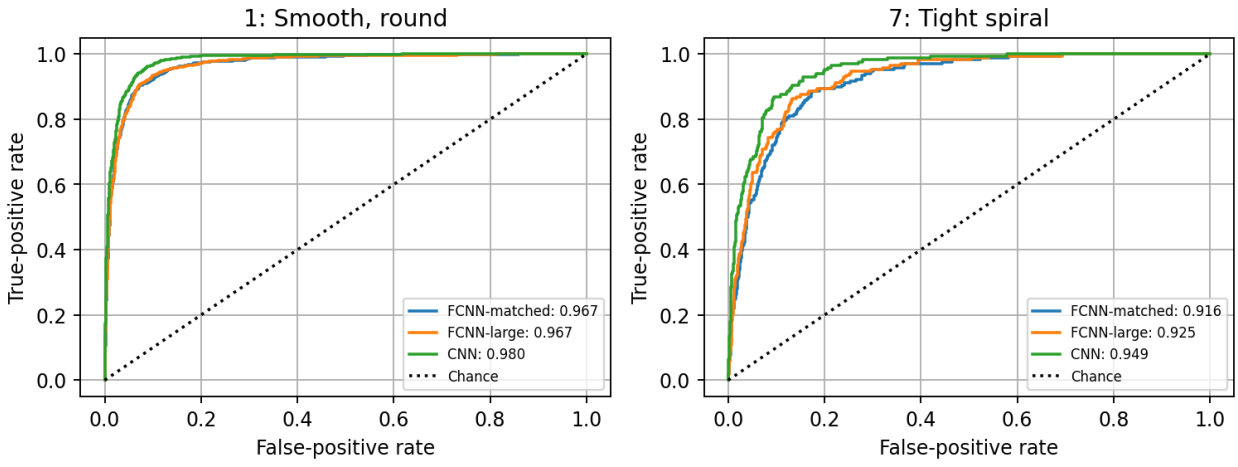


Figure 9: One-vs-rest ROC curves for a common smooth class (1) and a spiral class (7), using validation-selected seeds.

I used classes 1 and 7 for the ROC curves. These vary the threshold on one class's score, whereas the confusion matrix uses whichever of the ten scores is largest. A good ROC curve therefore does not mean every multiclass decision is correct. The confusions are consistent with faint or ambiguous structure, but I cannot conclude from the matrix alone that the volunteer labels are wrong.

3.2 Shifted galaxies

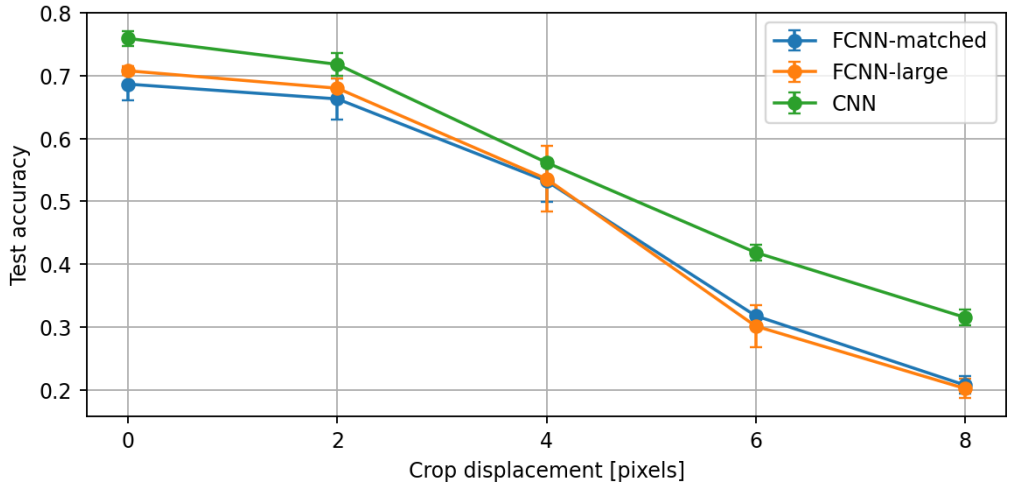


Figure 10: Test accuracy under displaced crops. Error bars show the standard deviation across seeds on the same test set.

At eight pixels, accuracies fall to 20.76%, 20.22% and 31.53% for matched FCNN, large FCNN and CNN. Each image gets one random cardinal direction, reused across displacements, models and seeds. Sky estimates still use the original border and the training normalisation stays fixed.

Shifting the crop moves the galaxy within the input, but also changes which outskirts and background pixels remain visible. I therefore interpret this as a practical test of displaced crops. Pooling and shared filters may help with position changes, but the dense head still depends on position, and no model can recover light that has left the crop.

At $d = 8$, the CNN retains higher accuracy and loses fewer points than either FCNN. However, at $d = 2$ it loses 4.13 points, compared with 2.36–2.77 for the FCNNs. My prediction in T4 was therefore only partly right: the CNN copes better with the larger shifts here, but its advantage is not consistent across all displacements.

3.3 Scrambled pixels

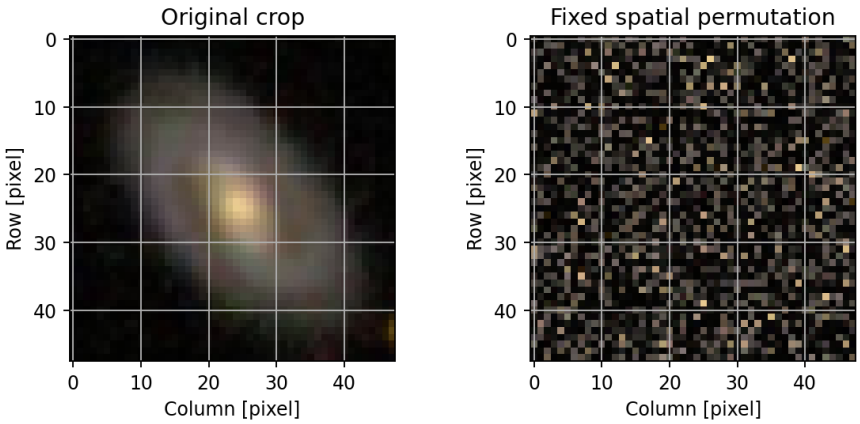


Figure 11: One shared permutation reorders 2,304 spatial positions, keeping the three bands together at each position.

Table 8: Seed-11 test performance before and after scrambling. All entries are percentages.

	Accuracy		Balanced accuracy	
Model	Original	Scrambled	Original	Scrambled
FCNN-matched	70.84	63.28	50.40	52.35
CNN	76.04	73.75	59.56	54.14

I retrained both models with one shared permutation of the spatial positions, keeping the three bands together. For a separate check, I permuted the original FCNN's first-layer weights to match its scrambled inputs. On 128 training images, the logits agree within 10^{-4} and every predicted class stays the same. This verifies the equivalence in T5 without retraining. The retrained model starts from a different effective arrangement of weights, so it can follow a different optimisation path.

My prediction was not supported by this run: CNN accuracy falls by 2.29 points and matched-FCNN accuracy by 7.56. Balanced accuracy falls by 5.43 points for CNN but rises by 1.95 for FCNN. One scrambled seed is not enough to establish a typical difference; repeating seeds would be the next check.

The scrambled CNN retains the colour and intensity values and a large dense head. These could help it perform well without the original local patterns, but I have not identified which features it uses.

B2. Robustness to noise.

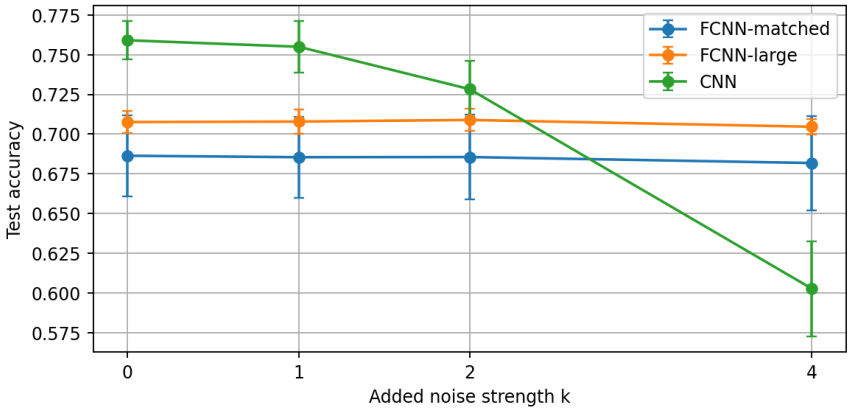


Figure 12: Accuracy after adding independent Gaussian noise with standard deviation k times the original robust sky estimate. Error bars show training-seed variation, not independent noise realisations. No models were retrained.

I added Gaussian noise to the raw 69×69 test images, using the original robust sky estimate to set its scale. I clipped values to [0,255], estimated the background again, and applied the same crop and training normalisation. I reused the same underlying noise field across strengths and models, without retraining.

Table 9: Test accuracy under added noise.

Model	k = 0 accuracy (%)	k = 4 accuracy (%)	Loss (points)
FCNN-matched	68.64 ± 2.54	68.18 ± 2.97	0.46
FCNN-large	70.76 ± 0.68	70.46 ± 0.47	0.30
CNN	75.91 ± 1.21	60.26 ± 2.99	15.65

At $k = 4$, FCNN-large has the highest accuracy. The CNN's advantage on the original images therefore does not extend to this added noise. Max pooling can select positive fluctuations, as in T7, but changing pooling while holding the rest of the model fixed would be needed to test whether it causes this loss.

The added Gaussian noise is a controlled perturbation. Real resized images can have correlated noise, and clipping changes the perturbation near 0 and 255. I kept the trained models fixed throughout.

4 Discussion

(a)

Table 10: Comparison of predictive performance and computational cost.

Model	Accuracy %	Balanced %	Params	MACs	s/epoch	s to target*
Matched FCNN	68.64 ± 2.54	49.16 ± 2.09	168,162	168,064	0.52 ± 0.02	6.2
Large FCNN	70.76 ± 0.68	52.99 ± 1.94	1,803,914	1,803,520	0.55 ± 0.00	6.3 ± 2.1
CNN	75.91 ± 1.21	59.47 ± 0.11	171,754	6,451,840	1.00 ± 0.05	10.7 ± 2.6

*Mean ± sample SD across seeds where available. Target-time summaries are conditional on reaching the fixed target; reach counts are given in Section 3.1. MACs refer to one forward pass.

The CNN has the highest accuracy and balanced accuracy. FCNN-large reaches the target in all three seeds in less time; matched FCNN reaches it only once. For this target and T4 runtime, FCNN-large is faster despite being less accurate on the test set.

(b) The radial profile has a bright centre and weaker outskirts, so local filters could detect small features before later layers combine them into larger structures. The CNN's better baseline accuracy is consistent with that idea, but it does not isolate the benefit of hierarchy. Scrambling tests locality: its 2.29-point CNN loss, smaller than the FCNN's 7.56-point loss, does not support my prediction for this seed.

Translation tolerance is also limited: the CNN retains more accuracy at eight pixels but loses more at two pixels. Added noise reverses the baseline ranking, with a 15.65-point CNN loss at $k = 4$. Local connections, pooling and shared weights are useful assumptions, but these tests show that they do not guarantee robustness.

(c) With only the five magnitudes u, g, r, i, z, I would start with an FCNN. There is no two-dimensional image grid for a 2D CNN. The bands have a wavelength order, but they are distinct broad measurements, so moving the same 1D filter between them needs a physical justification.

(d) I would first improve training-data coverage: class 5 has only 12 training examples. I would also inspect ambiguous labels, without assuming that confusion proves a label is wrong. The sky measurements, neighbours and clipping show other limits on visible information. I would compare data, preprocessing and architecture changes on validation data; these experiments do not establish which change would gain most accuracy.

AI use

I used ChatGPT to help me with PyTorch. This is my first time using this library, so I used AI to explain its functions and how to use them. I also used ChatGPT to polish the report and to do a final organisation of my notebook and the Overleaf document.

References

[1] astroNN, "Galaxy10 SDSS Dataset." Dataset definition, class counts, label-vote filtering and image preparation. Documentation. Data file: Galaxy10.h5, Zenodo record 10844811. Accessed October 14, 2026.